# Playable but Private: In-Encoder Selective Encryption with Ascon-AEAD128 and Attack-Adaptive Protection for MJPEG Video on an FPGA SoC

Aravind R, Suhas V J, Rishab H R, Samarth B N, Vijaysurya B S, Chetana G [TODO: order]
Department of Electronics and Communication Engineering, RV College of Engineering, Bengaluru, India
[TODO: e-mails]

**Extended draft, October 15, 2026. Not for distribution.**

***Abstract*—Small video cameras increasingly stream to networks they do not control, yet encrypting the whole stream makes it unplayable without the key and spends energy on every byte. We present a JPEG/MJPEG encoder for a Zynq-7020 FPGA SoC that encrypts only the sign and amplitude bits of selected DCT coefficients, at the entropy-coding stage and with a keystream from the NIST SP 800-232 lightweight standard Ascon-AEAD128. Huffman code lengths are untouched, so every protection level remains a valid JPEG stream, while a 128-bit tag computed over the frame metadata and the coded scan lets the receiver reject any modified, replayed or forged frame. The register-transfer-level design is verified bit-exact against a Python golden model and needs no additional clock cycles for encryption in any mode. Around the encoder we build an authenticated feedback channel, a key ratchet and an adaptive policy that raises protection when the receiver reports attacks. In a networked simulation, all 11 active attacks we model were mitigated in 0.91 s on average with no false alarms, and on 6 video clips and the Kodak images a keyed block shuffle removed the outline leakage that sign and amplitude encryption alone leave behind, also against a jigsaw solver and a trained neural attacker; the same network defeats sign-only encryption. We also report a negative result: a learning bandit policy saves 14 % of encrypted bits but reacts more slowly than a fixed threshold rule.**

***Index Terms*—selective encryption, MJPEG, Ascon, lightweight cryptography, FPGA, authenticated encryption, video surveillance**

## I. Introduction

Cameras on doors, corridors and machines now send video over Wi-Fi and shared Ethernet as a matter of course. Two properties matter for such a link. Confidentiality keeps a bystander on the network from watching the scene; integrity lets the viewer trust that what it shows was captured by the camera and not edited, replayed or injected on the way. The usual answer, encrypting the transport with TLS, SRTP [1] or a VPN, provides both, but it hides the stream from every tool that is not part of the key infrastructure and costs cipher work proportional to the full bitrate.

Selective encryption takes a different route: it encrypts only the parts of the compressed representation that carry most of the visual information, and leaves the format intact so that standard decoders still parse the result [2]. For JPEG, the sign and appended amplitude bits of the DCT coefficients can be encrypted without changing any Huffman code length, so the bitstream stays compliant and its size does not grow [3], [4]. The price is that such schemes are easy to weaken: the positions of non-zero coefficients stay visible, and an attacker who guesses the hidden values can still see outlines [2], [5].

This work starts from a practical question: how much of a secure camera link can be put into the encoder hardware itself, and what does an eavesdropper still learn? We make four contributions.

1) An MJPEG encoder in synthesizable Verilog in which an Ascon-AEAD128 [6], [7] keystream is XORed onto coefficient signs and amplitudes as they are entropy-coded, with no added cycles and closing timing at 100 MHz on a Zynq-7020, and a per-frame tag that binds the coded scan to the protection level, session, frame counter and image size (Section III).
2) Six protection levels, from tag-only to a keyed shuffle of macroblocks, evaluated against four keyless attackers (value replacement, a jigsaw solver, a trained U-Net and a chosen-plaintext attack) on a synthetic scene, 6 real video clips (2 of them openly licensed) and the Kodak image set, with the cost of restart intervals and the frame-size channel that no level hides (Sections V and VIII).
3) An authenticated feedback loop with a forward-secure key ratchet and an adaptive policy, evaluated against 11 active attacks and benign impairments; a threshold rule is compared with a contextual bandit over 10 paired seeds (Section VI).
4) A verification flow in which a Python golden model is the reference for every stage: Ascon matches all official known-answer tests, and every RTL block matches the model bit for bit.

## II. Related Work

*Selective encryption of JPEG.* Van Droogenbroeck and Benedetti encrypted the appended AC bits of baseline JPEG and observed that the stream remains compliant at constant

bitrate [3]. Puech and Rodrigues applied AES to selected DCT coefficients of medical images [8], and Auer et al. encrypted JPEG at bitstream level in real time with an AES-based keystream while preserving length and format [4]. Massoudi et al. survey the field and argue that visual distortion alone is a poor proxy for security, since replacement and chosen-plaintext attacks recover much more than the scrambled image suggests [2]. Lin et al. show that DCT sign bits can be recovered by optimization [5], which bounds what sign-only encryption can promise. Hirose et al. analyse JPEG encryption that shuffles blocks delimited by restart markers [9]; our strongest level uses the same mechanism with a keyed permutation. Li et al. recover block-shuffled JPEG with a chosen plaintext whenever the permutation depends on the key alone [10]. Selective encryption has also been extended to H.264/AVC and HEVC [11].

*Hardware.* Kishore et al. added a lightweight scrambling stage to an FPGA JPEG encoder at about 1 % extra hardware [12], and Bağbaba and Örs combined an FPGA JPEG encoder with TEA encryption of DC and low-frequency coefficients [13]. Neither authenticates the frames. Ascon, now standardized by NIST in SP 800-232 [6], [7], was designed for small hardware [14]; Gladis Kurian and Chen implement Ascon on an Artix-7 with Bloom-filter replay protection for IoT messages [15].

*Traffic analysis.* Sizes and timing of encrypted streams reveal motion [16] and which video is played [17]; traffic shaping hides IoT activity at up to $18\times$ the bandwidth for a camera [18].

*Gap.* We found no design that (i) places a standardized lightweight AEAD inside a hardware JPEG encoder at the entropy-coding stage, (ii) keeps every protection level playable while authenticating each frame together with its metadata, and (iii) closes the loop from the receiver back to the encoder so that the protection level follows observed attacks. We also could not find an evaluation of the outline leakage of such schemes against learned attackers on real video.

## III. System Design

### A. Threat model

The attacker sits on the network path. It may observe all traffic, and it may modify, drop, delay, replay or inject both video and feedback datagrams; it does not hold the keys. A passive eavesdropper sends nothing, so it cannot be detected; against it only the configured minimum protection level helps. Physical and side-channel attacks on the device are out of scope. The assets are the visual content of each frame, the integrity of content and metadata (protection level, session, counter and size), and the availability signal that tells the viewer the camera is alive. [TODO: nonce-uniqueness argument and reboot behaviour (GUIDE.md B3)]

### B. Encoder and cipher integration

Fig. 1 shows the datapath of a baseline JPEG encoder [19], [20]: colour conversion with 4:2:0 subsampling, a two-pass integer DCT, a reciprocal-multiplication quantiser, zig-zag ordering with run-length coding, the encryption stage, Huffman coding and a bit packer. The whole datapath is fixed-point and mirrors the golden model operation for operation, so the hardware output can be compared byte by byte.

The keystream generator runs Ascon-AEAD128 on an all-zero message under the frame nonce, one permutation round per clock cycle, and keeps a small buffer of keystream bits ahead of the encryption stage. For each coefficient the encryption stage consumes keystream bits only for the fields the protection level selects. If the sign is selected and the next keystream bit is one, all bits of the coefficient's appended amplitude field are inverted; in JPEG's one's-complement amplitude coding this is exactly a sign change. If amplitudes are selected, the remaining bits are XORed onto the lower bits of the field. The size category, and therefore the Huffman code, is never changed. As a result the encrypted scan has the same length as the plain one, and the keystream generator works in parallel with the rest of the pipeline.

A second Ascon instance computes the tag. Its associated data is a 26-byte prefix (format identifier, version, protection level, 64-bit session identifier, 64-bit frame counter, width and height) followed by every byte of the coded scan. The ARM core adds standard JPEG headers and an APP11 segment that carries the prefix and the tag; ordinary viewers skip this segment. Binding the level into the tag matters: an earlier version did not, and a frame could be downgraded undetected.

The 128-bit nonce concatenates the 64-bit session identifier with the 63-bit frame counter and one purpose bit that separates the keystream from the tag computation. The session identifier holds 48 random bits and the current key epoch.

### C. Protection levels

Every level carries the per-frame tag. E0 encrypts nothing (authentication only), E1 the AC sign bits, E2 also the DC-difference signs (default minimum), E3 also the AC amplitude bits, E4 also the DC amplitude bits, and E5 adds a keyed permutation of $16\times16$ macroblocks. Sign and amplitude encryption cannot hide which coefficients are non-zero, because the Huffman symbols reveal run lengths and size categories. E5 therefore inserts a restart marker after every macroblock and permutes the resulting segments with a Fisher–Yates shuffle driven by Ascon under a separately derived key. Restart markers keep the stream decodable but cost 12–21 % bitrate over E4 in our measurements ($320\times240$ and $640\times480$), whereas E2 adds only the 38-byte APP11 segment (0.3–0.5 %). E5 is implemented in the golden model; restart-marker support in the RTL is ongoing work.

### D. Feedback, keys and adaptive protection

The receiver authenticates every frame, checks the counter against a 64-entry replay window as in SRTP [1], and returns heartbeats every 0.5 s and rate-limited alerts. Feedback messages are themselves Ascon-AEAD128 encrypted under a separate key and protected by their own replay window. The video key is advanced by a one-way ratchet, $K_{e+1} =$

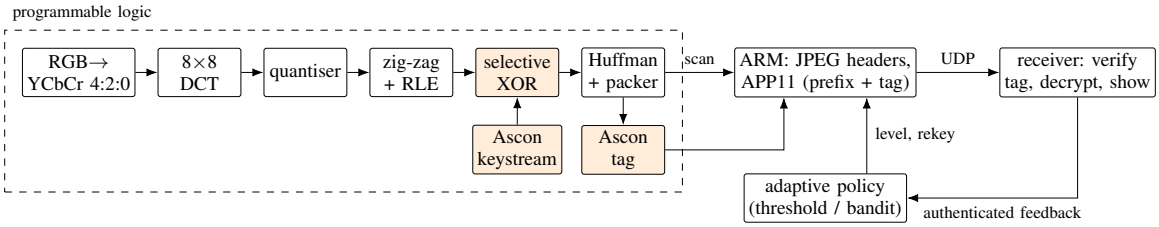



Fig. 1. Encoder datapath with in-loop encryption (shaded) and the feedback loop. The keystream is consumed only for the fields selected by the protection level; the tag covers the frame metadata and the coded scan.

$\mathrm{KDF}(K_e, \text{“ratchet”}, e{+}1)$, so a key captured later does not expose earlier epochs. A dead-man rule treats three seconds without a valid heartbeat as an attack: the sender switches to the highest level and rekeys.

The sender's ARM core collects evidence in one-second windows: tag failures, replays, malformed or stale frames, frame loss over three windows, forged feedback and unexpected traffic. Two policies map this evidence to a protection level. The *threshold* policy escalates to the highest level on strong evidence, holds it for 8 s, and rekeys on bursts of tag failures. The *bandit* policy is an $\varepsilon$-greedy contextual bandit [21] over a small discrete context, with optimistic initial values and sample-average updates; its reward penalizes leakage weighted by the evidence of attack, encrypted bits and level switches. Neither policy goes below the configured minimum level.

## IV. Implementation and Verification

The golden model is written in Python and implements Ascon, the integer transforms, entropy coding, encryption and the container format. It passes all 1089 official Ascon-AEAD128 known-answer tests. Each RTL block has a cocotb testbench that drives random inputs with random back-pressure and compares every output with the model; the top level is compared byte for byte for E0–E4 with 64-bit session identifiers and counters above $2^{32}$. A self-checking Verilog-2001 testbench encodes five frames in all five levels and is bit-exact with the model both in Icarus Verilog and in Vivado's simulator (XSim 2026.1).

In RTL simulation of a 160×128 frame, the cycle counts of E0–E4 differ by at most 2 cycles, which is handshake noise rather than encryption work: encryption costs no cycles. Above the floor of 1.5 cycles per pixel that 4:2:0 sampling sets, the only cost is filling the first MCU row: on five frame sizes the RTL needs $1.5 + 1.22/r$ cycles per pixel for $r$ MCU rows, 1.64 at 160×128 and 1.53 at 640×480. After place and route in Vivado it meets 100 MHz on the xc7z020 (WNS +0.045 ns, out of context, I/O delays of 20 % of the period), i.e. 65 Mpixel/s or 212 frames/s at 640×480. This took pipelining two paths that simulation cannot expose (the DCT row sum, first run 47 MHz, and the DMA-to-converter path) without changing an output bit. Table I gives the resources (5,039 LUTs, 9.5 % of the device; about 221 mW, vectorless estimate). The two Ascon instances take 46 % of the LUTs, and all 24 BRAM36 are the converter's MCU-row buffers, sized for 2048-pixel lines. In Table II, each of our Ascon cores (860–969 LUTs) is as small as the round-per-cycle Ascon-p cores of [22], and our JPEG datapath uses fewer LUTs than the commercial encoders [23], [24], which however process one sample per clock at 150–166 MHz with less block RAM.

TABLE I
Resources on the xc7z020 (53 200 LUT, 106 400 FF, 140 BRAM36, 220 DSP). Source: Vivado post-route, out of context, 100 MHz with I/O delays of 20 % of the period, WNS +0.045 ns; power is Vivado's vectorless estimate.

| Block | LUT | FF | BRAM36 | DSP |
|---|---|---|---|---|
| Encoder (all) | 5039 (9.5%) | 2911 (2.7%) | 24.5 (17.5%) | 23 (10.4%) |
| colour conversion + line buffers | 759 | 199 | 24 | 0 |
| DCT and quantizer | 806 | 68 | 0 | 22 |
| zig-zag, Huffman, packing | 727 | 301 | 0 | 0 |
| keystream generator (Ascon) | 952 | 851 | 0 | 0 |
| tag unit (Ascon) | 1345 | 1072 | 0 | 0 |
| selective encryption | 82 | 24 | 0 | 0 |
| AXI-Lite registers | 348 | 355 | 0 | 0 |

TABLE II
Comparison with published FPGA designs. Their numbers are as reported by each source; ours are post-route (Table I) with throughput from the RTL cycle count of a 640×480 frame. Mpx/s: million pixels per second.

| Design | Device | LUT | BRAM | DSP | MHz | Mpx/s | Crypto |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| Ours: encoder | Zynq-7020 | 5,039 | 24.5 | 23 | 100 | 65 | sel. AEAD |
| Ours: one Ascon | Zynq-7020 | 860–969 | 0 | 0 | 100 | – | AEAD core |
| logiJPGE [23] | Zynq-7020 | 3,240 | 16 | 30 | 150 | 150 | none |
| CAST JPEG-E-S [24] | Artix-7 | 3,069 | 2 | 16 | 166 | – | none |
| Khairallah [22] | Artix-7 | 1,031 | 0 | 0 | 200 | – | MAC |
| Kurian [15] | Artix-7 | 5,335 | 32 | 0 | 100 | – | AEAD |

## V. Security Evaluation

*Setup.* We measure what a keyless observer can reconstruct. For every frame we take the better of two pictures: the protected stream decoded as is, and a *replacement attack* that substitutes fixed guesses for the encrypted values (absolute values for encrypted signs, the smallest value of the size category for encrypted amplitudes, zero DC differences) and re-encodes a valid JPEG. Leakage is the Pearson correlation between the Sobel gradient magnitudes of this picture and of the original (edge correlation); we also report SSIM [25]. Sources are a synthetic corridor scene; 4 publicly available HD clips that we analyse but do not reproduce (two film trailers and two talking-head videos, identified by hash); 2 openly licensed films of the Blender Foundation, the Sintel trailer

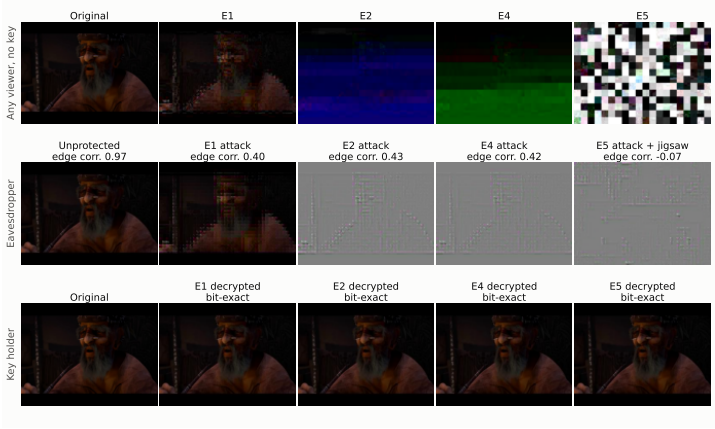



Fig. 2. One frame of the Sintel trailer (© Blender Foundation, CC BY 3.0) per protection level. Top: what any viewer shows without the key. Middle: the eavesdropper's best reconstruction (replacement attack; for E5 followed by the jigsaw solver) with its edge correlation. Bottom: the key holder's output, bit-exact with the unprotected encoder.

TABLE III
OUTLINE LEAKAGE: EDGE CORRELATION BETWEEN THE ORIGINAL AND THE EAVESDROPPER'S BEST KEYLESS RECONSTRUCTION (DECODE OR REPLACEMENT ATTACK; 0 = NO OUTLINE), UP TO 20 FRAMES PER SOURCE; FRAMES WITHOUT EDGES ARE SKIPPED. THE FIRST ROW IS THE FRACTION OF PAYLOAD BITS ENCRYPTED. JIG.: SHARE OF NEIGHBOUR PAIRS A GREEDY JIGSAW SOLVER RESTORES UNDER E5 (8 FRAMES; SINTEL 3); ORACLE: EDGE CORRELATION IF EVERY E5 BLOCK WERE PUT BACK IN PLACE, I.E. THE OUTLINE E5 HIDES.

| Source | E0 | E1 | E2 | E3 | E4 | E5 | Jig. (%) | Oracle |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| Enc. share | 0.00 | 0.11 | 0.13 | 0.26 | 0.30 | 0.31 | | |
| Synthetic | 1.00 | 0.38 | 0.36 | 0.37 | 0.37 | 0.00 | 2.3 | 0.37 |
| Trailer A | 0.99 | 0.47 | 0.34 | 0.34 | 0.33 | 0.01 | 1.4 | 0.46 |
| Trailer B | 0.99 | 0.58 | 0.27 | 0.31 | 0.30 | 0.02 | 1.3 | 0.41 |
| Talk A | 0.99 | 0.50 | 0.44 | 0.44 | 0.44 | 0.00 | 1.4 | 0.45 |
| Talk B | 0.99 | 0.49 | 0.38 | 0.44 | 0.43 | 0.01 | 1.7 | 0.47 |
| Sintel | 0.99 | 0.35 | 0.25 | 0.26 | 0.27 | 0.00 | 0.8 | 0.42 |
| Tears of Steel | 0.99 | 0.47 | 0.34 | 0.35 | 0.43 | -0.01 | 1.3 | 0.41 |
| Kodak | 0.99 | 0.39 | 0.32 | 0.33 | 0.30 | 0.00 | 1.3 | 0.32 |

and Tears of Steel (CC BY 3.0)[1]; and the 24 images of the Kodak set[2]. Video is resized to 320×240 and sampled every 150 frames; frames without edges are excluded.

*Format compliance.* The protected streams of all six levels decode without error in Pillow, OpenCV, scikit-image, FFmpeg (MJPEG), at the original resolution.

*Outline leakage.* Fig. 2 and Table III show the main effect. Under E1–E4 the eavesdropper sees a clear outline of the scene: edge correlation stays between 0.25 and 0.58 on the real sources, and encrypting amplitudes in addition to signs (E3, E4) does not reduce it, because the positions and size categories of the non-zero coefficients remain public. The keyed macroblock permutation of E5 removes the outline (edge correlation between -0.005 and 0.017). In terms of cost, E2 encrypts 13.4 % of the bits, E4 29.5 %, and E5 only slightly more, 31.0 %, yet only E5 moves leakage to zero.

[1]https://durian.blender.org, https://mango.blender.org
[2]http://r0k.us/graphics/kodak/

*Jigsaw attacker.* A permutation of blocks invites a puzzle solver. Our greedy region-growing solver in the style of [26] restores most neighbour relations on unencrypted shuffled tiles. On E5 replacement-attack tiles it places at most 1.7 % of neighbour pairs correctly, and the solved picture has no outline (Table III). The structure is not destroyed, only hidden: an oracle that knew the permutation would recover edge correlations of 0.32–0.47. A stronger solver may do better, so this bounds the leakage from below only. A chosen-plaintext attack [10] fails too: the permutation comes from the frame nonce, so one frame's exact permutation places 0.4 % of the next frame's 300 tiles (chance), where a key-only shuffle would reveal the picture.

*Learned attacker.* We trained a U-Net [27] to map the two keyless pictures (decoded and replacement attack) to the original and always tested it on clips it had not seen (Table IV). P1 and P2 train on 1000 frames of one clip, P3 uses only the open films, and P4 trains a wider network for 35 epochs on 2,609 frames of three clips and tests on 800 frames of three others. The network defeats sign-only encryption: under E1 it reaches an edge correlation of 0.69 and SSIM 0.78 (replacement attack: 0.40), so E1 is no protection against a trained attacker. Under E2 and E4 it adds little to the outline that replacement already reveals (edge correlation 0.37–0.44 against 0.40) but raises SSIM to about 0.34 by learning brightness and colour. As a control we score the median training frame, which uses no ciphertext (last row of Table IV). Under E5 the network's edge correlation (0.037, 95 % interval 0.028–0.046) equals that of this prior (0.036), so no outline comes from the stream; its SSIM exceeds the prior by 0.11 in P4, while in P3 it matches it (0.21 vs. 0.21); we attribute the gain to frame-level brightness and colour statistics, which a permutation of blocks does not hide. We therefore claim that E5 hides the shape of the scene from these attackers, not that it hides everything.

*Restart interval.* E5 as specified costs 8–23 % over the same E4 coefficients at 320×240 (a two-byte marker per macroblock

TABLE IV

U-NET RECONSTRUCTION, SSIM / EDGE CORR. ON UNSEEN TEST CLIPS. P1: TRAILER A→B, P2: TALK A→B, P3: SINTEL→TEARS OF STEEL, P4: THREE CLIPS→THREE OTHERS. REPL.: REPLACEMENT ATTACK, P4 TEST SET. LAST ROW: THE MEDIAN TRAINING FRAME, SCORED WITHOUT LOOKING AT THE STREAM.

| Mode | Repl. | P1 | P2 | P3 | P4 |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| E1 | 0.55 / 0.40 | 0.72 / 0.53 | 0.70 / 0.66 | 0.55 / 0.41 | 0.78 / 0.69 |
| E2 | 0.17 / 0.40 | 0.42 / 0.33 | 0.27 / 0.34 | 0.12 / 0.31 | 0.34 / 0.44 |
| E4 | 0.18 / 0.39 | 0.43 / 0.34 | 0.28 / 0.32 | 0.13 / 0.29 | 0.34 / 0.37 |
| E5 | 0.14 / 0.00 | 0.34 / -0.02 | 0.26 / 0.02 | 0.21 / -0.01 | 0.34 / 0.04 |
| No key, no stream | – | – | – | 0.21 / 0.04 | 0.23 / 0.04 |

TABLE V

E5 WITH $N$ MACROBLOCKS PER RESTART SEGMENT, MEAN OVER 8 SOURCES. OVERHEAD VS. E4 WITHOUT MARKERS; NZCA CORRELATION; SUCC.: SEGMENTS CHAINED TO THEIR TRUE SUCCESSOR BY A BEAM-SEARCH SOLVER (CHANCE).

| $N$ | Segments | Perm. bits | Overhead (%) | NZCA | Succ. (chance) |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| E4 (no shuffle) | – | – | – | 0.81 | – |
| 1 | 300 | 2041 | 14.2 | 0.00 | 0.02 (0.00) |
| 4 | 75 | 363 | 3.5 | 0.01 | 0.03 (0.01) |
| 8 | 38 | 149 | 1.8 | 0.03 | 0.03 (0.03) |
| 10 | 30 | 108 | 1.4 | 0.02 | 0.08 (0.03) |
| 32 | 10 | 22 | 0.5 | 0.03 | 0.25 (0.11) |

and restarted DC prediction). $N$ macroblocks per segment reduce this to 3.5 % at $N{=}4$ and 0.5 % at $N{=}32$ (Table V). Hirose et al. showed that a non-zero counting attack (NZCA) reveals the scene from the run-length symbols, which no level encrypts [9]. Without the shuffle, our NZCA map correlates 0.72–0.88 with the original's block edge energy; with it, at most 0.08 for every $N$ we tried. At $N{=}32$, however, only 10 segments remain, each an intact strip of 32 macroblocks, and a beam-search solver that chains segments by border continuity links 0.15–0.41 of them to their true successor on the real clips (chance 0.11), against at most 0.04 for $N \leq 8$. We keep $N{=}1$ and do not claim that longer intervals are safe.

*Standard metrics.* On all 8 sources (full table in our repository), key sensitivity holds: a one-bit key change makes E5 decryption differ in 77.5–99.5 % of the pixels (SSIM $\leq$0.22). The other metrics assume a cipher that turns the image into noise: the 8×8 block structure survives, so adjacent-pixel correlation stays at 0.88–0.92 and entropy rises only under E5 (5.88 to 7.07 bits), and the 1-pixel NPCR (at most 47 %) measures diffusion, which a stream cipher with a fresh nonce per frame does not need. We report them for comparability only.

## VI. PROTOCOL AND DEFENCE EVALUATION

*Setup.* Sender, network channel, receiver and logger run as separate processes that talk over UDP, so the evaluation exercises the real wire format, fragmentation and timing. The sender encodes 320×240 video at 10 frames/s with the golden model (same bytes as the RTL). The channel can impose loss, delay, jitter and reordering, and it implements the attacker of our threat model. All runs used a 4-core cloud virtual machine.

TABLE VI

REACTION TO EACH ACTIVE ATTACK (FULL SUITE, THRESHOLD POLICY, 3 RUNS; MEAN ± S.D. IN SECONDS). "FIRST REJECTION" IS WHEN THE RECEIVER FIRST DISCARDS A FRAME; "MITIGATED" IS WHEN THE SENDER HAS RAISED PROTECTION OR REKEYED.

| Attack | Mitigated | First rejection | Mitigated after |
|---|---|---|---|
| bit flips in the scan | 3/3 | $0.09 \pm 0.03$ | $0.41 \pm 0.02$ |
| mode downgrade in header | 3/3 | $0.06 \pm 0.02$ | $0.44 \pm 0.02$ |
| splice of two frames | 3/3 | $0.13 \pm 0.00$ | $0.46 \pm 0.01$ |
| forged frame injection | 3/3 | $0.14 \pm 0.06$ | $0.44 \pm 0.03$ |
| frame replay | 3/3 | $0.07 \pm 0.05$ | $0.46 \pm 0.03$ |
| frame delay | 3/3 | $4.13 \pm 0.04$ | $1.46 \pm 0.03$ |
| frame dropping | 3/3 | – | $1.46 \pm 0.03$ |
| junk flood | 3/3 | – | $0.49 \pm 0.04$ |
| feedback dropping | 3/3 | – | $3.47 \pm 0.05$ |
| forged feedback | 3/3 | – | $0.46 \pm 0.04$ |
| feedback replay | 3/3 | – | $0.44 \pm 0.01$ |

*Active attacks.* The full scenario applies 11 attacks for six seconds each, 25 s apart: bit flips in the scan, a mode downgrade in the header, splicing of two frames, injection of a forged frame, replay, delay, dropping, a junk flood, and dropping, forging and replaying feedback. Table VI gives the result over 3 runs. Every attack was mitigated in every run, on average $0.91 \pm 0.02$ s after it began, with 0/375 false alarms in calm windows and a median frame latency of 97 ms. The slowest case, dropped feedback, is caught only by the dead-man rule, after about 3.5 s: the 3 s timeout plus part of a decision window. With a trailer, a talking-head clip or Tears of Steel as the video source instead of the synthetic scene, all attacks were again mitigated (11/11, 11/11 and 11/11; means 0.89, 1.09 and 1.12 s, one run each) without false alarms.

*Benign impairments.* A second scenario applies only network problems: rising packet loss up to 6 %, delay up to 120 ms with jitter, and 5 % reordering. Over 3 runs the defence raised no false alarm (0/447 windows); median latency was 82 ms and the 95th percentile 278 ms. This needed loss to be judged over three windows and late frames to be told apart from replays.

*Threshold rule against bandit.* The learning scenario repeats a bit-flip and a replay attack five times each, separated by calm periods. We ran both policies with 10 paired seeds. The result is a consistent trade-off rather than a winner (Table VII). The bandit encrypted fewer bits in every seed (0.162 against 0.188 of the payload, 14 % less), but it reacted later (1.34 against 0.46 s) and leaked more while attacks were active (0.054 against almost zero), again in every seed. Neither policy raised a false alarm (0/6020). We keep the threshold rule as the default; the bandit suits links where bandwidth matters more than the first second of an attack.

*Cost relative to software.* On the simulation host, our Python model needs 134 ms to encode a 640×480 frame and 151 ms including E2 selective encryption, whereas libjpeg-turbo takes 0.95 ms and full-stream AES-GCM about 0.01 ms. A desktop processor is the wrong baseline; what matters is the SoC's ARM core, which has no AES instructions. [TODO: ARM Cortex-A9 baseline (libjpeg-turbo, AES-GCM, selective

TABLE VII
THRESHOLD RULE VS. $\varepsilon$-GREEDY BANDIT ON THE LEARNING SCENARIO, 10 SEEDS EACH (MEAN $\pm$ S.D.). THE LAST COLUMN COUNTS THE SEEDS IN WHICH THE BANDIT WAS BETTER (LOWER) THAN THE THRESHOLD RULE WITH THE SAME SEED.

| Metric | Threshold | Bandit | Bandit better |
|---|---|---|---|
| Mitigation (s) | $0.46 \pm 0.02$ | $1.34 \pm 0.03$ | 0/10 |
| Leakage under attack | $0.000 \pm 0.001$ | $0.054 \pm 0.004$ | 0/10 |
| Encrypted share | $0.188 \pm 0.001$ | $0.162 \pm 0.001$ | 10/10 |
| Encrypted share, calm | $0.135 \pm 0.000$ | $0.138 \pm 0.001$ | 0/10 |

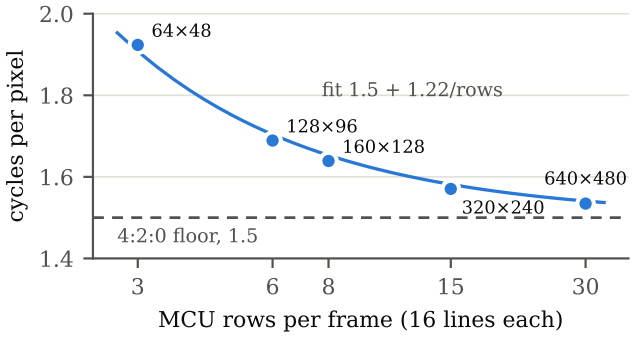



Fig. 3. Cycles per pixel of the encoder RTL against frame height, measured in cycle-accurate simulation (dots), with the fitted law $1.5 + 1.22/r$ for $r$ MCU rows.

encryption in C), FPGA frame rate and energy per frame measured on the PYNQ-Z2 (GUIDE.md A1–A4, B1)]

## VII. FURTHER EXPERIMENTS

The experiments in this section come from our research scripts on the same sources; the first one is a cycle-accurate RTL measurement, the throughput of more than one lane is a projection from an event model.

*Where the cycles go.* Monitoring every handshake of the RTL pipeline over 9 cases (three images, three levels) shows the same cycles per pixel to within 0.001 for every image and level, and an entropy path (run-length coding, encryption, Huffman coding, packing) that waits for data at least 42 % of the time. The only cost above the 1.5 cycles per pixel of 4:2:0 sampling is filling the first MCU row before the DCT can start, a fixed cost per frame (Fig. 3). Faster designs must therefore widen the transform path, not the cipher.

*Parallel lanes.* Restart markers reset DC prediction, so segments can be coded by independent lanes and concatenated. On all seven sources the merged output of 2–4 lanes is byte-identical to the sequential encoder; one segment per MCU row costs 0.6–2.2 % bitrate. A single keystream per frame would serialize the lanes, so the model derives a key per frame and a nonce per segment. An event model that reproduces the measured RTL law projects 100 Mpixel/s at 100 MHz for two lanes (7,584 LUTs, 45 DSPs) and 200 Mpixel/s for four lanes fed two pixels per clock (12,674 LUTs, 89 DSPs).

*Bitrate regulation.* A sender on a shared link must follow the available bandwidth. Treating the quality factor like the voltage

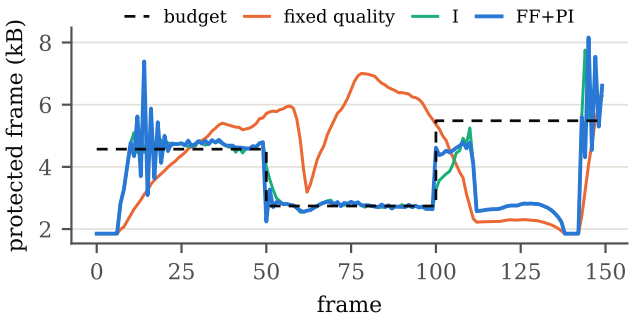



Fig. 4. Bitrate regulation on the Sintel trailer: protected frame size under a budget that follows the link (100 %, 60 %, 120 % of the clip's median), with fixed quality, integral control and feed-forward plus PI.

of a motor drive, we compared fixed quality, bang-bang, integral, PI and feed-forward plus PI control (Fig. 4). After settling, fixed quality misses the budget by 33–62 % on five real clips, integral control by 4–17 % and feed-forward plus PI by 6–19 %, which settles within 4 frames of a bandwidth drop (1.6 % on the synthetic scene). Scene cuts are disturbances that no causal controller anticipates. The sixth clip exposed a limit cycle after a cut from black to a detailed scene, removed by a log-domain error and a slew limit.

*Change-driven coding.* Coding only the 16×16 blocks that changed, as a retina does, needs 22 % of the bytes on the fixed camera but 41–78 % on the real clips, and the number of coded blocks tracks motion (correlation 0.95 and 0.63–0.87) even when the change map is hidden. Coding a constant 25 % of the blocks per frame, refreshing the oldest unchanged ones, and padding every frame hides both, at 46 % of the bytes and SSIM 0.945 on the fixed camera, but SSIM falls to 0.76–0.93 on edited clips.

*Keyed block transforms.* Independent keyed flips per block defeat jigsaw solvers for block-scrambling ciphers. For the DCT, a flip is a pattern of sign changes, which E5 already encrypts: on seven sources the jigsaw solver stays at chance (at most 2.3 % neighbours) with or without keyed flips, and even with every tile position given, SSIM changes by at most 0.008. E5's protection therefore rests on the block positions; an attacker who knew them would reach SSIM 0.05–0.38 on the real clips (0.55 on the synthetic scene).

## VIII. DISCUSSION AND LIMITATIONS

Four limitations bound our claims. First, our hardware numbers are post-route for the encoder alone and the power figure is a vectorless estimate; timing closure of the complete Zynq system and measurements on the board are pending, and E5 exists only in the golden model. Second, sign and amplitude encryption leak outlines by construction, however many bits are encrypted; only a change of block positions removes them, at a bitrate cost. Third, encryption hides content, not length: frame sizes reveal motion at every level alike (Fig. 5). Constant-size frames close the channel, cheaply for a fixed

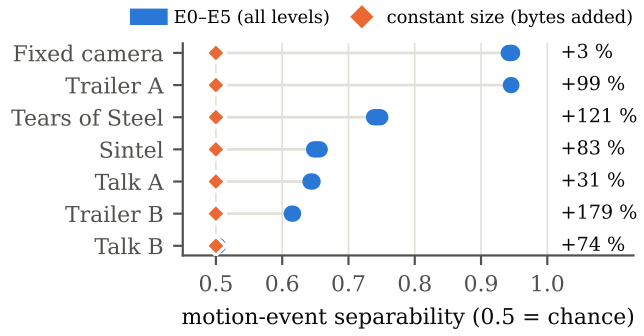



Fig. 5. Motion events detected from frame sizes alone, for every protection level (bar: E0–E5 range) and with every frame padded to a constant size (diamond; bytes added on the right). Fixed camera: synthetic scene; the others are the real clips.

camera but at up to +179 % bytes on edited clips; padding to the largest frame so far gives 0.55 for +3 % on the fixed camera, while bitrate regulation lets up to 30 % of frames exceed a cap. Fourth, our attackers are greedy or trained on a few clips; stronger puzzle solvers or attackers trained on large video corpora may extract more from E5, and a trained network already undoes sign-only encryption (E1). On the protocol side, the receiver cannot tell heavy benign loss from partial jamming, so only near-total suppression escalates, and the reaction time is bounded below by the one-second decision window.

## IX. Conclusion

Encrypting coefficient signs and amplitudes with Ascon inside a JPEG encoder costs no cycles, keeps every protection level playable, and, combined with a per-frame tag over metadata and scan, turns a plain MJPEG stream into an authenticated one. Without a keyed change of block positions, however, an eavesdropper still sees the outline of the scene, and no level hides the frame sizes. A closed feedback loop answers active attacks within about a second in simulation. Next are on-board results on the PYNQ-Z2, macroblock shuffling and size padding in hardware, a shared Ascon core, and key derivation with the standard's extendable-output function.

## Acknowledgment

We thank Dr. Chetana G for her guidance. [TODO: AI-assistance disclosure as required by the conference (see paper/README.md): name the tools and what they were used for, e.g. code generation, test scaffolding and language editing.]

## References

[1] M. Baugher, D. McGrew, M. Naslund, E. Carrara, and K. Norrman, "The secure real-time transport protocol (SRTP)," IETF, RFC 3711, Mar. 2004.

[2] A. Massoudi, F. Lefebvre, C. De Vleeschouwer, B. Macq, and J.-J. Quisquater, "Overview on selective encryption of image and video: Challenges and perspectives," *EURASIP Journal on Information Security*, vol. 2008, p. 179290, 2008.

[3] M. Van Droogenbroeck and R. Benedetti, "Techniques for a selective encryption of uncompressed and compressed images," in *Proc. Advanced Concepts for Intelligent Vision Systems (ACIVS)*, Ghent, Belgium, Sep. 2002, pp. 90–97.

[4] S. Auer, A. Bliem, D. Engel, and A. Unterweger, "Bitstream-based JPEG encryption in real-time," *International Journal of Digital Crime and Forensics*, vol. 5, no. 3, pp. 1–14, 2013.

[5] R. Lin, S. Liu, J. Jiang, S. Li, C. Li, and C.-C. J. Kuo, "Recovering sign bits of DCT coefficients in digital images as an optimization problem," *Journal of Visual Communication and Image Representation*, p. 104045, 2024.

[6] M. S. Turan, K. A. McKay, D. Chang, J. Kang, and J. Kelsey, "Ascon-based lightweight cryptography standards for constrained devices: Authenticated encryption, hash, and extendable output functions," National Institute of Standards and Technology, NIST Special Publication 800-232, Aug. 2025.

[7] C. Dobraunig, M. Eichlseder, F. Mendel, and M. Schläffer, "Ascon v1.2: Lightweight authenticated encryption and hashing," *Journal of Cryptology*, vol. 34, no. 3, p. 33, 2021.

[8] W. Puech and J. M. Rodrigues, "Crypto-compression of medical images by selective encryption of DCT," in *Proc. 13th European Signal Processing Conference (EUSIPCO)*, Antalya, Turkey, 2005.

[9] M. Hirose, S. Imaizumi, and H. Kiya, "On the security of bitstream-level JPEG encryption with restart markers," arXiv:2410.06522, 2024.

[10] S. Li, Y. Guo, J. Huang, and R. Gao, "Fast attack algorithm for JPEG image encryption with block position shuffle," *Journal of Shanghai Jiaotong University (Science)*, vol. 30, no. 5, pp. 976–987, 2025.

[11] B. Boyadjis, C. Bergeron, B. Pesquet-Popescu, and F. Dufaux, "Extended selective encryption of H.264/AVC (CABAC)- and HEVC-encoded video streams," *IEEE Transactions on Circuits and Systems for Video Technology*, vol. 27, no. 4, 2017.

[12] B. Kishore, B. K. Shreyamsha Kumar, and C. R. Patil, "FPGA based simple and fast JPEG encryptor," *Journal of Real-Time Image Processing*, vol. 10, no. 3, pp. 551–559, 2015.

[13] A. Ç. Bağbaba and B. Örs, "Hardware implementation of novel image compression-encryption system on a FPGA," in *Proc. 9th International Conference on Electrical and Electronics Engineering (ELECO)*, Bursa, Turkey, 2015, pp. 1159–1163.

[14] H. Groß, E. Wenger, C. Dobraunig, and C. Ehrenhöfer, "Ascon hardware implementations and side-channel evaluation," *Microprocessors and Microsystems*, vol. 52, pp. 470–479, 2017.

[15] M. Gladis Kurian and Y. Chen, "Ascon on FPGA: Post-quantum safe authenticated encryption with replay protection for IoT," *Electronics*, vol. 14, no. 13, p. 2668, 2025.

[16] C. Wampler, S. Uluagac, and R. Beyah, "Information leakage in encrypted IP video traffic," in *Proc. IEEE Global Communications Conference (GLOBECOM)*, 2015.

[17] R. Schuster, V. Shmatikov, and E. Tromer, "Beauty and the burst: Remote identification of encrypted video streams," in *Proc. 26th USENIX Security Symposium*, 2017, pp. 1357–1374.

[18] N. Apthorpe, D. Y. Huang, D. Reisman, A. Narayanan, and N. Feamster, "Keeping the smart home private with smart(er) IoT traffic shaping," *Proceedings on Privacy Enhancing Technologies*, vol. 2019, no. 3, pp. 128–148, 2019.

[19] ITU-T, "Information technology – digital compression and coding of continuous-tone still images – requirements and guidelines," International Telecommunication Union, Recommendation T.81, 1992.

[20] G. K. Wallace, "The JPEG still picture compression standard," *IEEE Transactions on Consumer Electronics*, vol. 38, no. 1, pp. xviii–xxxiv, 1992.

[21] R. S. Sutton and A. G. Barto, *Reinforcement Learning: An Introduction*, 2nd ed. MIT Press, 2018.

[22] M. Khairallah and S. Yadhunathan, "FPGA implementations of message authentication codes based on Ascon-p," in *NIST Lightweight Cryptography Workshop*, 2023.

[23] Xylon d.o.o., "logiJPGE motion JPEG encoder data sheet, v1.0," https://www.logicbricks.com/Documentation/Datasheets/IP/logiJPGE_hds.pdf, 2020.

[24] CAST, Inc., "JPEG-E-S baseline JPEG encoder, product brief," https://www.cast-inc.com/pdfs/cast_jpeg-e-s-brief-amd.pdf, accessed 14 Oct. 2026.

[25] Z. Wang, A. C. Bovik, H. R. Sheikh, and E. P. Simoncelli, "Image quality assessment: From error visibility to structural similarity," *IEEE Transactions on Image Processing*, vol. 13, no. 4, pp. 600–612, 2004.

[26] D. Pomeranz, M. Shemesh, and O. Ben-Shahar, "A fully automated greedy square jigsaw puzzle solver," in *Proc. IEEE Conference on Computer Vision and Pattern Recognition (CVPR)*, 2011, pp. 9–16.

[27] O. Ronneberger, P. Fischer, and T. Brox, "U-Net: Convolutional networks for biomedical image segmentation," in *Proc. Medical Image Computing and Computer-Assisted Intervention (MICCAI)*, ser. LNCS, vol. 9351, 2015, pp. 234–241.